

1 Abstract

2 How species assemble temporally has received growing attention as
3 Climate change has shifted the timing of major life cycle events across most systems and is altering how
4 species assemble temporally. While theory predicts that plant species should partition time to reduce
5 resource competition—for example by leafing out at different times—few studies have examined this
6 given the complexity of environmental cues that make timings highly variable across years and sites.
7 We examine species- and community-level responses in budburst across 47 cuttings of woody plant
8 species across four sites in North America. By manipulating known temperature and photoperiod
9 cues in controlled environments, then applying a phylogenetic Bayesian model, we estimate the effects
10 of these cues and evolutionary history in shaping leafout across species. We found that each cue
11 caused budburst to shift at similar rates, despite plants being sampled at different sites, but that
12 the day of budburst varied greatly by species. These differences in species responses to well-studied
13 temperature and photoperiod cues, however, explained only half this variation, with the remaining
14 variation mostly explained by the estimated phylogenetic structure of budburst and inherent species
15 differences in the timing of their growth and leafout.. This suggests current models of leafout phenology
16 are missing important variation that may structure species assembly within communities. Identifying
17 these unidentified cues or traits is critical to forecasting phenological shifts and understanding their
18 effects on community dynamics.

Introduction

Climate change has led to advances of about three days per decade in the timing of species life history events—phenology (Cohen et al., 2018; Parmesan, 2007; Thackeray et al., 2016). Different types of events, however, are highly variable, with certain events, such as leafout, spanning a period of weeks. Understanding and explaining this variability has become increasingly important as phenology shifts in response to rising temperatures at different rates (Fitter and Fitter, 2002; Fridley, 2012; Menzel et al., 2006; Parmesan, 2007; Yu et al., 2010). Some degree of variability is likely due to differences in climate change itself across space—as some areas warm faster than others and generate larger phenological shifts (Hoegh-Guldberg et al., 2018). Recent research suggests that species-level differences in phenology also drive some of this variation (Vitasse et al., 2009, 2018; Wolkovich and Cleland, 2014; Zohner and Renner, 2014). How these differences compare to other potential sources of variation, and what predicts them, is still largely unknown, but has major implications for predicting how changes in phenology will affect community dynamics and ecosystem services.

Differences in species phenologies can impact community structure and dynamics. Community ecology has long posited that species assemble in part through partitioning time, leading to unique temporal niches that allow species to coexist (Chesson et al., 2004; Grime, 1977). For example, earlier germination or leafout may provide understory species early-access to soil and light resources, before larger canopy species leafout (Heberling et al., 2019; Lee and Ibáñez, 2021). These different temporal niches may also trade-off different pressures, with research suggesting that in seasonal systems species that are active earlier experience greater abiotic pressures—such as spring frost—but avoid the larger competitive pressures for resources that occur later in the season when most species are fully active (Augspurger, 2009; Gotelli and Graves, 1996; Pau et al., 2011; Sakai and Larcher, 1987). As climate change variably affects the timing of growth, it may alter the temporal order of species in a community and result in novel interactions between species (Cleland et al., 2012; Rudolf, 2019; Tiisanen et al., 2020), thus changing the competitive landscape and synchrony of interactions within communities.

While recent changes in climate are shaping differences in phenology, for many species their temporal niches may also reflect their evolutionary history. Species traits in communities today are the result of selective pressures acting over evolutionary timescales that include the historical climates and related ancestral phenotypes that were favourable under previous conditions (Wiens et al., 2010). This could produce greater similarity in phenological traits of more closely related species (Davies et al., 2013; Morales-Castilla et al., 2024), which would impact how species respond to future climates.

53 Spring budburst offers an excellent system to test for species- and community-level patterns in phe-
54 nology and environmental cues. Budburst of temperate woody plants is well studied and thus known
55 to respond to environmental cues, especially temperatures in the winter and spring—referred to as
56 chilling and forcing, respectively—and daylength or photoperiod (Basler and Körner, 2014; Chuine
57 et al., 2010; Cooke et al., 2012; Laube et al., 2014; Polgar and Primack, 2011). Budburst responses
58 to these cues are generally similar across sites and populations (Aitken and Bemmels, 2016; Zeng
59 and Wolkovich, 2024). Species-level differences, however, are generally much larger than observa-
60 tions of site or population-level variation (but see Deans, 1996; Sogaard et al., 2008, for examples of
61 population-level differences). Decades of phenological research suggests these unique phenologies are
62 likely due to different responses of species to temperature and photoperiod cues, though they may be
63 also structured by species shared evolutionary history (Davies et al., 2013; Gougherty and Gougherty,
64 2018; Lechowicz, 1984) and their current environments. Forest understory species, for example, should
65 vary their leafout and budburst early to both gain access to light and soil nutrients prior to canopy
66 closure (Mahall and Bormann, 1978; Muller, 1978), and to reduce competition between species within
67 the understory versus canopy. Within a species, differences in leafout timing can be caused by local
68 temperature and light conditions, with this added variation having the potential to improve species
69 resilience to and ability to shift its range shifts or adaptation to future conditions (Parker et al., 2022).

70

71 Here we test how environmental—temperature and photoperiod—cues and evolutionary relationships
72 shape species-level variation in phenology of forest communities across North America. We leveraged
73 two large-scale growth chamber cutting experiments, in which we vary the temperature cues of chilling
74 (cool temperatures in the fall and winter) and forcing (warmer temperatures, usually in the spring) with
75 photoperiod (Fig. 1), with Bayesian phylogenetic approach to estimate budburst responses across 47
76 woody species. We collected samples from plants at four sites, in eastern and western North America
77 (Fig. 1), with pairs of sites on each coast spanning 4 and 6° latitude, respectively. Our dataset
78 includes the diverse assemblages of tree and shrub species found in eastern and western deciduous
79 forests, allowing us to explore differences across both sites and functional groups—including understory
80 shrubs versus canopy trees—in eastern versus western forests.

81 Materials and Methods

82 Field sampling

83 We combined data from two growth chamber studies using dormant branch clippings of North Ameri-
84 can deciduous woody plants. Such cutting experiments are a common and powerful approach to infer

the responses of adult trees to environmental conditions (Primack et al., 2007; Vitasse et al., 2014). In our first study, we collected samples from two eastern communities—Harvard Forest, Massachusetts, USA (42.55°N, 72.20°W) and St. Hippolyte, Quebec, Canada (45.98°N, 74.01°W), from 20-28 January, 2015 (previously reported in Flynn and Wolkovich, 2018). The second growth chamber study spanned two western communities—Smithers (54.78°N, 127.17°W) and E.C. Manning Park (49.06°N, 120.78°W), British Columbia, Canada, with sampling from 19-28 October 2019 (not previously published). Combining the datasets from these two experiments allowed us to test for spatial variation in the phenology of woody plant communities at a larger geographic scale and make stronger inferences for how different species vary in their cues.

We selected the dominant deciduous species in each forest community and maximized the number of species occurring across sites and congener species. We observed budburst for 47 species spanning eastern and western forest communities, with 28 species at our eastern transect and 21 species at our western transect, of which 3 species occurred at both regions (Fig. 1, Table S1). Of the species in our eastern transect, there were 13 shrubs and 15 trees, while our western transect included 18 shrub and 4 tree species. At all sites, we tagged 15-20 healthy, individuals for each species in the summer prior to sampling. To reduce ontogenetic effects (Vitasse et al., 2014), we only sampled mature individuals, which we assumed to be trees that were greater than 2 m in height and with DBH greater than 4 cm (Natural Resources Canada, 2020). We collected a single cutting from small shrub species, but depending on the size of the sampled tree, we took between 6-16 cuttings, thus collecting samples from 6-20 tagged plants per species. All cuttings were taken from the same relative canopy position, sampling terminal branches from shrubs and the lower canopy from trees using a pole pruner from the ground. We kept samples cold and immediately placed them in erlenmeyer flasks of water upon returning from the field. We conducted the eastern study at the Arnold Arboretum, Boston, MA, USA, and the western study at the University of British Columbia, BC, Canada. We used daily weather data from local weather stations to calculate the field chilling prior to collection (see Table S2).

Growth chamber study

We used growth chambers with two levels of chilling—with either no additional chilling or 30 days at 4°C for our eastern study, and 21 or 56 days of chilling at 4°C for our western study (all dark)—after which we moved plants to one of two levels of forcing—with day and night temperatures that varied to create a cool regime of 15:5°C and a warm regime of 20:10°C—crossed with two photoperiods of either 8 or 12 hours—for a total of 8 distinct treatments in each study.

Our design was similar for both eastern and western sites (Fig. 1). We had seven to ten replicates per treatment in our eastern study and eight replicates in our western study, with the exception of *Sorbus scopulina*, for which we only had six replicates per treatment. Our eastern and western studies differed only in the timing of sample collection and thermoperiodicity (the interval of alternating day and night temperatures) in forcing treatments. By collecting samples in our eastern study in late January, they experienced considerable field chilling. We collected the western samples in late October, with most chilling occurring under controlled conditions. In our eastern study, we also set the duration of forcing temperatures to correspond with the photoperiod treatments. While this is a widespread and common approach in phenology chamber studies, it leads to a confounding effect in the thermoperiodicity (Buonaiuto et al., 2023). Thus we applied forcing temperatures for 12 hours independent of the duration of the photoperiod treatments in our western study, and controlled for this difference in our statistical approach (see below). Each experiment was conducted across 8 growth chambers. We additionally rotated cuttings within chambers approximately every two weeks to avoid any chamber effects and changed the water and re-cut each cutting to prevent callusing and keep cuttings healthy. We controlled for small differences in the number of replicates across species in our statistical approach using partial pooling (see section on statistical analysis).

We assessed phenological stages of budburst using the BBCH scale (Finn et al., 2007), adapted for our specific species. We also created photographic guides to help define each stage of the BBCH scale for our specific species (Loughnan and Wolkovich, 2024; Savas et al., 2017). Every 1-3 days, we observed each sample and recorded all phenological stages up to full leaf expansion (defined as code 17 by Finn et al., 2007). Here, we modelled budburst timing, defined as the day of budbreak or shoot elongation (denoted as code 07 by Finn et al., 2007) since forcing treatments began. Our eastern study spanned 82 days, with over 19320 phenological observations, while the western study spanned 113 days and 47844 phenological observations.

Statistical Analysis

We tested for differences in budburst cues across species and communities using a phylogenetic mixed effects model with partial pooling ('shrinkage') across species. This approach accounts for both the evolutionary relatedness of our species and estimates the species-level cues and differences across sites. We obtained species phylogenetic relatedness by pruning the Smith and Brown (2018) megatree of angiosperms (Fig. 2).

In our model, we included each of our three cues as continuous variables. To account for the later collection dates and greater amounts of field chilling experienced in our eastern study, we converted our chilling treatments to chill portions for each individual community using local weather station data (Table S2) and the chillR package (v. 0.73.1, Luedeling, 2020). Chill portions are a commonly used chill metric that is calculated using hourly climate data and a Dynamic Model in which cool temperatures lead to the accumulation of chilling, while more accurately estimating chilling accumulation under fluctuating temperatures (Luedeling, 2012, 2020). We calculated chill portions for both the chilling experienced in the field prior to sampling and during the experiment in our 4°C chilling chambers. We also converted forcing temperatures to mean daily temperatures in each treatment to account for differences in thermoperiodicity between the two studies (Buonaiuto et al., 2023). Finally, we z -scored each cue and site using two standard deviations to allow direct comparisons between results across cues (Gelman, 2008). In addition to the overall predictors, we included all two-way interactions between cues and between cues and sites.

Our modelling approach allowed us to combine observations of budburst (y_i) across species (sp) to estimate both the effects of species-specific differences in their responses (the rate of change in budburst day per unit of standardized cue, as estimated by the slope, β) to cues (chilling, forcing and photoperiod). As a linear model, the estimates of the species-level intercepts (α_{sp_i}) in turn represent the day of budburst for each individual species independent of cue responses (Gelman et al., 2020). Our full model also estimated effects of sites and all possible two-way interactions between cues, and between cues and sites, to estimate the day of budburst ($\hat{y}$) relative to the first day of forcing conditions and relative to baseline conditions and our Smithers site.

$$\begin{aligned}\hat{y}_i = & \alpha_{sp_i} + \beta_{Manning\ park} + \beta_{Harvard\ forest} + \beta_{St.\ Hippolyte} + \\ & \beta_{chilling_{sp_i}} + \beta_{forcing_{sp_i}} + \beta_{photoperiod_{sp_i}} + \\ & \beta_{forcing \times chilling_{sp_i}} + \beta_{forcing \times photoperiod_{sp_i}} + \beta_{chilling \times photoperiod_{sp_i}} + \\ & \beta_{forcing \times Manning\ park_{sp_i}} + \beta_{forcing \times Harvard\ forest_{sp_i}} + \beta_{forcing \times St.\ Hippolyte_{sp_i}} + \\ & \beta_{chilling \times Manning\ park_{sp_i}} + \beta_{chilling \times Harvard\ forest_{sp_i}} + \beta_{chilling \times St.\ Hippolyte_{sp_i}} + \\ & \beta_{photoperiod \times Manning\ park_{sp_i}} + \beta_{photoperiod \times Harvard\ forest_{sp_i}} + \beta_{photoperiod \times St.\ Hippolyte_{sp_i}}\end{aligned}$$

$$y_i \sim \text{normal}(\hat{y}_i, \sigma^2)$$

The slopes were modelled with partial pooling at the species-level:

$$\beta_{forcing_{sp}} \sim \text{normal}(\mu_{forcing_{sp}}, \sigma_{forcing}^2)$$

...

$$\beta_{photoperiod \times St.Hippolyte_{sp}} \sim \text{normal}(\mu_{photoperiod \times St.Hippolyte_{sp}}, \sigma_{photoperiod \times St.Hippolyte_{sp}}^2)$$

176 We included the phylogenetic effect on species-specific differences in budburst timing (α_{sp}) as a variance
177 covariance matrix ($\mathbf{V}$) in the parameterization of the normal random vector:

$$\boldsymbol{\alpha}_{sp} = \begin{bmatrix} \alpha_1 \\ \alpha_2 \\ \dots \\ \alpha_n \end{bmatrix} \text{ such that } \boldsymbol{\alpha} \sim \text{multi-normal}(\mu_{\alpha}, \mathbf{V})$$

178 The timing of budburst ancestrally is represented as the root value of the means of the multivariate
179 normal distribution. The phylogenetic structuring of budburst is estimated using Pagel’s lambda, a
180 phylogenetic scaling parameter where values close to one indicate a phylogenetic signal consistent with
181 Brownian motion and values close to zero the absence of a phylogenetic signal for a given trait (Pagel,
182 1999; Pearse et al., 2025). For more detail on this method of phylogenetic modeling, see Morales-
183 Castilla et al. (2024). **In addition to our main model, we performed a subsequent analysis, using a**
184 **similar model, but with the phylogeny included on the residuals instead of the intercept, thus allowing**
185 **us to further assess whether the estimates of species intercepts were likely to encompass confounding**
186 **effects in addition to species shared evolutionary history.**

187 We used non-informative priors for each of our model parameters (increasing priors three-fold did not
188 demonstrably change our estimates), and validated the model code using test data prior to analysis.
189 Our model produced $\hat{R}$ values close to 1, well mixed chains, and n_{eff} values that exceeded 10% of the
190 model iterations. Our model was fit using the Stan language with the rstan package (v. 2.26.23, Stan
191 Development Team, 2018) in R (v. 4.3.1, R Development Core Team, 2017).

192

193 We present model estimates, relative to baseline or low treatment conditions. This means that we
194 show the average daily temperature for our cooler forcing conditions (which averaged to 8.33°C for our
195 eastern sites and 10°C for our western sites, after accounting for the differences in thermoperiodicity),
196 with a short photoperiod (8 hours photoperiod), and the mean of lowest chill portions from each pop-
197 ulation (which is equivalent to approximately 10 weeks of chilling at 4°C) and—when relevant—our
198 most northern sites. We present results as means and 90% posterior uncertainty intervals from our

Bayesian phylogenetic models.

Results

On average, species budburst occurred 30.4 days (uncertainty interval: 26.0, 35.2) after the start of forcing and photoperiod treatments (all estimates are given as mean $\pm$ 90% uncertainty intervals, henceforth ‘UI,’ and budburst dates given as relative to baseline conditions, see methods for more details). Between the earliest and latest budbursting species, the difference in the mean day of budburst was 38.5 and 30.7 days for the eastern and western sites respectively. Budburst of individual species showed distinct differences in their timing and the relative importance of cues, but all cues led to an advance in budburst date. Of the three cues, chilling had the largest effect, with increased chilling advancing budburst (we represent advances with negative numbers, while delays are positive; -14.8, UI: -16.7, -12.9 days per standardized chill portions) and photoperiod the smallest (-3.4, UI: -4.0, -2.7 days per standardized photoperiod, Fig. 3a, S1). But we found a large, subadditive interaction between forcing and chilling (8.4, UI: 7.0, 9.8, Fig. 3b); meaning that low chilling is offset by high forcing conditions, and vice versa (Table S3).

Overall we found species budburst was moderately phylogenetically structured (Pagel’s λ of 0.4, UI: 0.1, 0.8, Fig 2, estimated on the intercept). This phylogenetic structure suggests latent processes that shape species-level differences in budburst timing beyond the species-specific differences in their shifts responses to temperature (chilling and forcing) and photoperiod. This is further supported by the similar estimates of phylogenetic structure when phylogeny was modelled on the residuals instead (Table S4). The contribution of these species-specific cue differences to budburst order and timing was small compared to the overall species differences unexplained by cues (represented in the modeling framework as the intercept), with the exact magnitude for which chilling, forcing and photoperiod determine budburst date depending on the level of each cue (e.g., forcing has a much larger effect on budburst timing given a constant daytime temperature of 20°C compared to a constant daytime temperature of 15°C). Across the levels of chilling, forcing and photoperiod we studied, species-specific differences in responses to cues explained only between 37.6% and 67.8% of variation for eastern species and between 47.4 and 61.7% for western species, with the phylogenetically structured intercept explaining the rest (Fig. 2).

We also found the rank order of species’ budburst timings changed more when estimated using higher chilling (the average of which is equivalent to approximately 15 weeks chilling at 4°C), forcing and

longer photoperiods than under lower chilling and forcing and shorter photoperiods (Fig. S2). The budburst ranking for the three species that occurred in both transects remained relatively consistent across the two communities (Fig. 4), with only *Alnus incana* in the western community experiencing a large change in rank with cues (Fig. S2). In comparing the earliest and latest budbursting species, we found relatively small differences in cues (Fig. 4). For example, an early budbursting shrub, *Lyonia ligustrina*, had chilling and forcing cue estimates of -14.7 and -11.5 respectively, which are comparable to the cue estimates of -15.7 and -11.5 for the much later tree, *Quercus alba*. Yet the model predicts these species to have a 15.1 day difference in day of budburst, highlighting how the timing of budburst across species was also strongly related to species level differences (intercept values) independent of their responses to chilling, forcing and photoperiod (see Fig. 5).

Despite our expectations that species responses should differ across the canopy layer, with shrubs being less sensitive to cues than trees, we did not find substantial differences across these two functional groups (Fig. S3). Shrubs, like *Cornus stolonifera*, budburst early and showed small responses to chilling and forcing (Fig. 4b, d). But 36.7% of the shrubs, including *Menziesia ferruginea* and *Symphoricarpos alba*, exhibited the opposite response and budburst relatively late (Fig. 5, S3). Similarly for trees, some species did match our predictions, exhibiting stronger cues, but 23.5% of species budburst earlier than expected. While specific tree species, such as *Quercus velutina*, did have larger chilling and photoperiod responses as predicted (Fig. 4a, e), and *Fagus grandifolia* had the largest photoperiod response (Fig. 4e), overall we did not find clear differences between the cues of trees and shrubs across the four forest communities.

Finally, we observed negligible site-level effects compared to differences between cues (Fig. 3, Table S3). Treatments that received a month less of chilling (low chilling), were 5°C cooler (low forcing), and had shorter photoperiods all budburst later compared to the more chilled, warmer and long photoperiod treatments across all sites and across transects (Fig. S1 a-c, shown for baseline conditions, see Table S3 for model output). Overall budburst dates did not differ between sites, though eastern sites budburst marginally earlier (day 35.8, UI: 28.3, 42.3) compared to the western sites (day 48.1, UI: 40.7, 54.5, see also Table S3 for model output). This could be due to the earlier collection date of our western species, which reduced the field chilling they received relative to our eastern samples (though see corrections for this in the statistical analysis section of our methods).

Discussion

To accurately forecast shifts in phenology and its impact on ecological communities requires understanding which environmental cues are most important at the population-, species-, functional-group and community-levels. Our results support decades of research finding that budburst timing advances in response to the well-studied major temperature cues of chilling and forcing (with the greatest responses to chilling and forcing respectively, see also Ettinger et al., 2020; Flynn and Wolkovich, 2018) and longer photoperiods. But using our modelling approach allowed us to estimate the extent to which these species-specific responses to these cues do—or do not—lead to differences in species timings that may structure temporal niches within communities. Perhaps surprisingly, we found a large portion (one-third to one-half) of variation in species budburst timings was unexplained by different responses to chilling, forcing and photoperiod. Our results show that some of this variation is due to species evolutionary history, but not all, suggesting fundamental gaps in our model of one of the best studied and most important phenological events—woody plant budburst.

Differences in species responses to temperature and photoperiod were similar across sites and functional groups, suggesting that understanding the drivers of variation across species may be an important task to improve forecasting. Our study included 47 of the dominant woody species from deciduous forests across North America from both shrub and tree functional groups, with a mix of early and late budbursting phenologies. Despite the high degree of diversity and spatial scale represented in our study, we found no detectable differences in the community-level responses to temperature and photoperiod, including across different coasts and over 6° of latitude. This contrasts with research that suggests latitudinal trends in photoperiod and temperature may impose unique selective pressures, and thus may drive site-level differences in responses to cues (Keller et al., 2011). Latitudinal gradients in spring phenological shifts have been found by studies using *in situ* phenological data (Alecrim et al., 2023; Post et al., 2018). Such work, however, is based on long-term observations in the field, with confounding differences in study duration and start dates, variable methodologies, and geographic extent. Phenological differences between populations have been observed in common garden studies, particularly in studies testing for variation in leafout or plant growth across elevational gradients, with some finding evidence of genetic effects and weaker responses to temperature at high elevations (Gugger et al., 2015; Vitasse et al., 2009), while studies attribute differences to local microclimates (McDonough MacKenzie et al., 2018; Stinson, 2005; Vitasse et al., 2013). To further contribute to these findings, the lack of site-level effects that we observed—using experiments to estimate responses—suggests budburst cues further suggests leafout is not shaped by local conditions, at least at our study scale.

299 **Community composition and interspecific variation in phenology**

300 The variation across species in their responses to environmental cues has the potential to create large
 301 differences in species temporal niches and ecological roles. Species ranged from early to late budburst
 302 timing in our experimental conditions, spanning a similar period as observed in natural communities
 303 (Lechowicz, 1984; Richardson, A.D., O’Keefe, 2009). This suggests our experiment captured a realistic
 304 breadth in temperate forest budburst. Furthermore, all our focal species responded to each environ-
 305 mental cue, with large responses to chilling and comparatively small responses to photoperiod—trends
 306 consistent with previous studies (Ettinger et al., 2020; Flynn and Wolkovich, 2018). Cues, however,
 307 had complex interactions that appear potentially advantageous under warming climates (Caffarra and
 308 Donnelly, 2011; Flynn and Wolkovich, 2018; Heide, 1993). The interaction between chilling and forcing
 309 may ensure that species budburst even if warmer winters cause insufficient chilling, but will require
 310 additional forcing. But despite these differences in species responses to cues, we did not find clear,
 311 generalizable trends across functional groups.

312
 313 Shrubs and trees differ greatly in their physiology, filling different ecological niches. Most of our trees
 314 budburst later than our study’s shrubs, a relative order also found by previous studies (Gill et al.,
 315 1998; Panchen et al., 2014; Polgar et al., 2014). But about a quarter of our trees also budburst early,
 316 with timing more similar to that of shrubs. Similarly, we found a third of shrubs budburst at similar
 317 times as the majority of our trees. These deviations from our expectations for how shrubs and trees
 318 partition their budburst timing suggests there is more nuance to these patterns. As tree species ad-
 319 vance phenologically—resulting in earlier canopy closure and reduced light availability (Donnelly and
 320 Yu, 2019; Heberling et al., 2019)—this subset of shrubs with small cues may have reduced fitness. Our
 321 findings suggest, however, that many shrubs will also advance phenologically and have the potential
 322 to maintain their relative temporal niche.

323

324 **Community assembly in responses to cues versus evolutionary history**

325 Our study included the three cues—chilling, forcing and photoperiod—commonly thought to determine
 326 budburst timing, but over a third of the total variation was not explained by these cues (Fig. 4), sug-
 327 gesting the general model of budburst may be incomplete. This, paired with the observed phylogenetic
 328 structure in budburst timing, hints at unidentified latent traits still missing from our understanding
 329 of the processes shaping spring phenology (Davies et al., 2019; Webb et al., 2002).

330

331 Latent traits could reflect other cue or trait relationships indicative of species growth strategies or
 332 key traits that may facilitate greater resource use, or the greater competitive abilities needed when
 333 budbursting later (Grime, 1977; Inouye et al., 2010). For example, species that budburst later in the
 334 season may have more conservative growth strategies, possessing traits that allow them to compete for
 335 limited soil resources and light, such as low specific leaf areas or higher wood densities (Chave et al.,
 336 2009; Wright et al., 2004). But our results suggest that evolutionary history and species ancestral
 337 phenotype also have some effect on species timings and cues. Species traits are shaped over ‘deep’
 338 timescales, with previous evolution also influencing responses to the present climate. Phenological
 339 trends could thus be an indication of limited evolutionary time to adapt (Lechowicz, 1984), or shaped
 340 by selection on other important traits that are not phylogenetically structured. Incorporating both
 341 phenology and evolutionary history into a broader trait framework could thus provide insights into
 342 traits that correlate with budburst timing, and—ultimately—the current and evolutionary drivers that
 343 select for species phenotypes and possibly shape species adaptive potential to future climates.

344

345 Predicting budburst under future climates

346 As climate change leads to greater temperature cues, we are already observing advances in species bud-
 347 burst within diverse ecological communities. *These changes are likely to have cascading impacts on*
 348 *species interactions, with greater overlap in species leafout potentially increasing competition for polli-*
 349 *nators or resources and light, impacting future performance and community composition. The greatest*
 350 *ecological impacts will occur in high latitude communities that are warming the most and the fastest*
 351 *(Hoegh-Guldberg et al., 2018), which our findings suggest will alter the order with which species bud-*
 352 *burst, further creating novel species interactions relative to communities experiencing smaller changes*
 353 *in cues.* Yet our ability to predict these changes is often limited by a lack of available data for most
 354 species and biases in which species have been studied to date.

355

356 In addition to our findings providing insights into the phenological cues of understudied temperate
 357 forests communities, our approach encompasses several recent advances in forecasting phenological re-
 358 sponses to climate change. By accounting for shared evolutionary history when estimating species-level
 359 variability, we were able to better estimate cue responses for poorly sampled species, which allows con-
 360 servation scientists to leverage currently available data to make predictions for closely related species
 361 (Molina-Venegas et al., 2018), and develop more effect pilot studies for species that are rare, protected,
 362 or challenging to study. Secondly, the consistent of cue responses we observed across our forest com-

363 munities suggests that species responses to future climate may be consistent across spatial scales. As
364 such, our understanding of forest community responses to climate change may benefit more from stud-
365 ies that encompass high taxonomic diversity, rather than the study of few species over larger spatial
366 scales.

367

368 While our findings have applications to plant communities, our analytical approach is widely applica-
369 ble to forecasting diverse species responses to climate change. The phylogenetic model we used here
370 could be easily applied to other phenological events or suites of species from across the tree of life. By
371 combining species-rich and community-wide approaches with phylogenetic relationships we can better
372 understand the impacts of evolutionary history and current ecological processes in shaping species
373 phenology under a changing climate.

374

375 **Acknowledgements**

376 We thank M. Yasutake, K. Slimon, S. Larter, P. Autio, and S. Collins for their help running the
377 Western part of this experiment; D. Flynn and T. Savas for contributions to the Eastern experimental
378 data; S. Joly for his help constructing the phylogenetic tree used in our analysis; and to J. Hopps and
379 K. Wilson for their support during our work at E. C. Manning Park and P. Crawford and D. Belford
380 for their support while working in Babine Provincial Park.

381

382 **Author Contribution Statement**

383 Both D.L. and E.M.W. conceived the study, contributed to the analysis and code and contributed to
384 the writing and revision of the manuscript. DL led field and experimental data collection.

385

386 **Competing Interests Statement**

387 The authors have no competing interests.

388

References

- Aitken, S. N., and J. B. Bemmels. 2016. Time to get moving: assisted gene flow of forest trees. *Evolutionary Applications* **9**:271–290.
- Alecrim, E. F., R. D. Sargent, and J. R. K. Forrester. 2023. Higher-latitude spring-flowering herbs advance their phenology more than trees with warming temperatures. *Journal of Ecology* **111**:156–169.
- Augspurger, C. K. 2009. Spring 2007 warmth and frost : phenology , damage and refoliation in a temperate deciduous forest. *Functional Ecology* **23**:1031–1039.
- Basler, D., and C. Körner. 2014. Photoperiod and temperature responses of bud swelling and bud burst in four temperate forest tree species. *Tree Physiology* **34**:377–388.
- Buonaiuto, D. M., E. M. Wolkovich, and M. J. Donahue. 2023. Experimental designs for testing the interactive effects of temperature and light in ecology : The problem of periodicity. *Functional Ecology* **37**:1747–1756.
- Caffarra, A., and A. Donnelly. 2011. The ecological significance of phenology in four different tree species: Effects of light and temperature on bud burst. *International Journal of Biometeorology* **55**:711–721.
- Chave, J., D. Coomes, S. Jansen, S. L. Lewis, N. G. Swenson, and A. E. Zanne. 2009. Towards a worldwide wood economics spectrum. *Ecology Letters* **12**:351–366.
- Chesson, P., R. L. E. Gebauer, S. Schwinning, N. Huntly, K. Wiegand, M. S. K. Ernest, A. Sher, A. Novoplansky, and J. F. Weltzin. 2004. Resource pulses, species interactions, and diversity maintenance in arid and semi-arid environments. *Oecologia* **141**:236–253.
- Chuine, I., X. Morin, and H. Bugmann. 2010. Warming, photoperiods, and tree phenology. *Science* **329**:277–278.
- Cleland, E. E., J. M. Allen, T. M. Crimmins, J. A. Dunne, S. Pau, S. E. Travers, E. S. Zavaleta, and E. M. Wolkovich. 2012. Phenological tracking enables positive species responses to climate change. *Ecology* **93**:1765–1771.
- Cohen, J. M., M. J. Lajeunesse, and J. R. Rohr. 2018. A global synthesis of animal phenological responses to climate change. *Nature Climate Change* **8**:224–228.
- Cooke, J. E., M. E. Eriksson, and O. Junttila. 2012. The dynamic nature of bud dormancy in trees: Environmental control and molecular mechanisms. *Plant, Cell and Environment* **35**:1707–1728.

419 Davies, T. J., J. Regetz, E. M. Wolkovich, and B. J. McGill. 2019. Phylogenetically weighted regression:
420 A method for modelling non-stationarity on evolutionary trees. *Global Ecology and Biogeography*
421 **28**:275–285.

422 Davies, T. J., E. M. Wolkovich, N. J. B. Kraft, N. Salamin, J. M. Allen, T. R. Ault, J. L. Betancourt,
423 K. Bolmgren, E. E. Cleland, B. I. Cook, T. M. Crimmins, S. J. Mazer, G. J. McCabe, S. Pau,
424 J. Regetz, M. D. Schwartz, and S. E. Travers. 2013. Phylogenetic conservatism in plant phenology.
425 *Journal of Ecology* **101**:1520–1530.

426 Deans, J. 1996. Frost hardiness of 16 European provenances of sessile oak growing in Scotland. *Forestry*
427 **69**:5–12.

428 Donnelly, A., and R. Yu. 2019. Temperate deciduous shrub phenology: the overlooked forest layer.
429 *International Journal of Biometeorology* **65**:343–355.

430 Ettinger, A. K., C. J. Chamberlain, I. Morales-Castilla, D. M. Buonaiuto, D. F. Flynn, T. Savas,
431 J. A. Samaha, and E. M. Wolkovich. 2020. Winter temperatures predominate in spring phenological
432 responses to warming. *Nature Climate Change* **10**:1137–1142.

433 Finn, G. A., A. E. Straszewski, and V. Peterson. 2007. A general growth stage key for describing trees
434 and woody plants. *Annals of Applied Biology* **151**:127–131.

435 Fitter, A. H., and R. S. Fitter. 2002. Rapid changes in flowering time in British plants. *Science*
436 **296**:1689–1691.

437 Flynn, D. F. B., and E. M. Wolkovich. 2018. Temperature and photoperiod drive spring phenology
438 across all species in a temperate forest community. *New Phytologist* **219**:1353–1362.

439 Fridley, J. D. 2012. Extended leaf phenology and the autumn niche in deciduous forest invasions.
440 *Nature* **485**:359–362.

441 Gelman, A. 2008. Scaling regression inputs by dividing by two standard deviations. *Statistics in*
442 *Medicine* **27**:2865–2873.

443 Gelman, A., J. Hill, and A. Vehtari. 2020. *Regression and other stories*. Cambridge University Press.

444 Gill, D. S., J. S. Amthor, and F. H. Bormann. 1998. Leaf phenology, photosynthesis, and the persistence
445 of saplings and shrubs in a mature northern hardwood forest. *Tree Physiology* **18**:281–289.

446 Gotelli, N. J., and G. R. Graves, 1996. The temporal niche. Pages 95–112 *in* *Null Models In Ecology*.
447 Smithsonian Institution Press, Washington, D. C.

Gougherty, A. V., and S. W. Gougherty. 2018. Sequence of flower and leaf emergence in deciduous trees is linked to ecological traits, phylogenetics, and climate. *New Phytologist* **220**:121–131.

Grime, J. P. 1977. Evidence for the Existence of Three Primary Strategies in Plants and Its Relevance to Ecological and Evolutionary Theory. *The American Naturalist* **111**:1169–1194.

Gugger, S., H. Kesselring, J. Stocklin, and E. Hamann. 2015. Lower plasticity exhibited by high- versus mid-elevation species in their phenological responses to manipulated temperature and drought. *Annals of Botany* **116**:953–962.

Heberling, J. M., C. McDonough MacKenzie, J. D. Fridley, S. Kalisz, and R. B. Primack. 2019. Phenological mismatch with trees reduces wildflower carbon budgets. *Ecology Letters* **22**:616–623. URL <https://onlinelibrary.wiley.com/doi/10.1111/ele.13224>.

Heide, O. M. 1993. Daylength and thermal time responses of budburst during dormancy release in some northern deciduous trees. *Physiologia Plantarum* **88**:531–540.

Hoegh-Guldberg, O., D. Jacob, M. Taylor, M. Bindi, S. Brown, I. Camilloni, A. Diedhiou, R. Djalante, K. Ebi, F. Engelbrecht, J. Guiot, Y. Hijioka, S. Mehrotra, A. Payne, S. Seneviratne, A. Thomas, R. Warren, and G. Zhou, 2018. Impacts of 1.5°C Global Warming on Natural and Human Systems. In: *Global Warming of 1.5 °C. An IPCC Special Report on the impacts of global warming of 1.5 °C above pre-industrial levels and related global greenhouse gas emission pathways, in the context of .* Technical report, Cambridge University Press, Cambridge, UK and New York, NY, USA.

Inouye, B. D., J. Ehrlén, and N. Underwood. 2010. Phenology as a process rather than an event: from individual reaction norms to community metrics. *Ecological Monographs* **89**:e01352.

Keller, S. R., R. Y. Soolanayakanahally, R. D. Guy, S. N. Silim, M. S. Olson, and P. Tiffin. 2011. Climate-driven local adaptation of ecophysiology and phenology in balsam poplar, *Populus balsamifera* L. (Salicaceae). *American Journal of Botany* **98**:99–108.

Laube, J., T. H. Sparks, N. Estrella, J. Höfler, D. P. Ankerst, and A. Menzel. 2014. Chilling outweighs photoperiod in preventing precocious spring development. *Global Change Biology* **20**:170–182.

Lechowicz, M. J. 1984. Why Do Temperate Deciduous Trees Leaf Out at Different Times? Adaptation and Ecology of Forest Communities. *The American Naturalist* **124**:821–842.

Lee, B. R., and I. Ibáñez. 2021. Spring phenological escape is critical for the survival of temperate tree seedlings. *Functional Ecology* **35**:1848–1861.

Loughnan, D., and E. M. Wolkovich. 2024. A photographic guide to spring phenology for woody plants in Western North America. Knowledge Network for Biocomplexity (KNB) .

- 479 Luedeling, E. 2012. Climate change impacts on winter chill for temperate fruit and nut production:
480 A review. *Scientia Horticulturae* **144**:218–229.
- 481 Luedeling, E., 2020. chillR: Statistical Methods for Phenology Analysis in Temperate Fruit Trees.
482 <https://CRAN.R-project.org/package=chillR>.
- 483 Mahall, B. E., and F. H. Bormann. 1978. A Quantitative Description of the Vegetative Phenology of
484 Herbs in a Northern Hardwood Forest. *Botanical Gazette* **139**:467–481.
- 485 McDonough MacKenzie, C., R. B. Primack, and A. J. Miller-Rushing. 2018. Local environment,
486 not local adaptation, drives leaf-out phenology in common gardens along an elevational gradient in
487 Acadia National Park, Maine. *American Journal of Botany* **105**:986–995. URL [https://bsapubs.
488 onlinelibrary.wiley.com/doi/10.1002/ajb2.1108](https://bsapubs.onlinelibrary.wiley.com/doi/10.1002/ajb2.1108).
- 489 Menzel, A., T. H. Sparks, N. Estrella, E. Koch, A. Aaasa, R. Ahas, K. Alm-Kübler, P. Bissolli,
490 O. Braslavská, A. Briede, F. M. Chmielewski, Z. Crepinsek, Y. Curnel, Å. Dahl, C. Defila, A. Don-
491 nnelly, Y. Filella, K. Jactzak, F. Måge, A. Mestre, Ø. Nordli, J. Peñuelas, P. Pirinen, V. Remišová,
492 H. Scheifinger, M. Striz, A. Susnik, A. J. Van Vliet, F. E. Wielgolaski, S. Zach, and A. Zust. 2006.
493 European phenological response to climate change matches the warming pattern. *Global Change
494 Biology* **12**:1969–1976.
- 495 Molina-Venegas, R., J. C. Moreno-Saiz, I. C. Parga, T. J. Davies, P. R. Peres-Neto, and M. Á. Ro-
496 dríguez. 2018. Assessing among-lineage variability in phylogenetic imputation of functional trait
497 datasets. *Ecography* **41**:1740–1749.
- 498 Morales-Castilla, I., T. J. Davies, G. Legault, D. M. Buonaiuto, C. J. Chamberlain, A. K. Ettinger,
499 M. Garner, F. A. M. Jones, D. Loughnan, W. D. Pearse, D. S. Sodhi, and E. M. Wolkovich. 2024.
500 Phylogenetic estimates of species-level phenology improve ecological forecasting. *Nature Climate
501 Change* **14**:989–995.
- 502 Muller, R. N. 1978. The Phenology, Growth and Ecosystem Dynamics of *Erythronium americanum*
503 in the Northern Hardwood Forest. *Ecological Monographs* **48**:1–20.
- 504 Natural Resources Canada, 2020. Forestry glossary: Sapling. URL [https://cfs.nrcan.gc.ca/terms/
505 read/996](https://cfs.nrcan.gc.ca/terms/read/996).
- 506 Pagel, M. 1999. Inferring the historical patterns of biological evolution. *Nature* **401**:877–884.
- 507 Panchen, Z. A., R. B. Primack, B. Nordt, E. R. Ellwood, A. Stevens, S. S. Renner, C. G. Willis,
508 R. Fahey, A. Whittemore, Y. Du, and C. C. Davis. 2014. Leaf out times of temperate woody

plants are related to phylogeny, deciduousness, growth habit and wood anatomy. *New Phytologist* **203**:1208–1219.

Parker, T. C., S. I. Unger, M. L. Moody, J. Tang, and N. Fetcher. 2022. Intraspecific variation in phenology offers resilience to climate change for *Eriophorum vaginatum*. *Arctic Science* **8**:935–951.

Parmesan, C. 2007. Influences of species, latitudes and methodologies on estimates of phenological response to global warming. *Global Change Biology* **13**:1860–1872.

Pau, S., E. M. Wolkovich, B. I. Cook, T. J. Davies, N. J. B. Kraft, K. Bolmgren, J. L. Betancourt, and E. E. Cleland. 2011. Predicting phenology by integrating ecology, evolution and climate science. *Global Change Biology* **17**:3633–3643.

Pearse, W. D., T. J. Davies, and E. M. Wolkovich. 2025. How to define, use, and Interpret Pagel’s lambda in Ecology and Evolution. *Global Ecology and Biogeography* **34**:e70012.

Polgar, C., A. Gallinat, and R. B. Primack. 2014. Drivers of leaf-out phenology and their implications for species invasions: insights from *T. boreau’s* *C. oncord*. *New Phytologist* **202**:106–115. URL <https://nph.onlinelibrary.wiley.com/doi/10.1111/nph.12647>.

Polgar, C. A., and R. B. Primack. 2011. Leaf-out phenology of temperate woody plants: From trees to ecosystems. *New Phytologist* **191**:926–941.

Post, E., B. A. Steinman, and M. E. Mann. 2018. Acceleration of phenological advance and warming with latitude over the past century. *Scientific Reports* **8**:1–8.

Primack, R. B., J. Laube, A. S. Gallinat, and A. Menzel. 2007. Influences of species, latitudes and methodologies on estimates of phenological response to global warming. *Global Change Biology* **13**:1860–1872.

R Development Core Team, 2017. R: A Language and Environment for Statistical Computing.

Richardson, A.D., O’Keefe, J., 2009. Phenological Differences Between Understory and Overstory. Pages 87–117 in A. Noormets, editor. *Phenology of Ecosystem Processes*. Springer US, New York, NY.

Rudolf, V. H. W. 2019. The role of seasonal timing and phenological shifts for species coexistence. *Ecology Letters* **22**:1324–1338.

Sakai, A., and W. Larcher. 1987. *Frost Survival of Plants: Responses and adaptation to freezing stress*. Springer-Verlag, Berlin, Heidelberg.

539 Savas, T., D. F. B. Flynn, and E. M. Wolkovich. 2017. A standardized photographic guide to woody
540 plant spring phenology. Knowledge Network for Biocomplexity (KNB) .

541 Smith, S. A., and J. W. Brown. 2018. Constructing a broadly inclusive seed plant phylogeny. American
542 Journal of Botany **105**:302–314.

543 Sogaard, G., O. Johnsen, J. Nilsen, and O. Junttila. 2008. Climatic control of bud burst in young
544 seedlings of nine provenances of Norway spruce. Tree Physiology **28**:311–320.

545 Stan Development Team, 2018. RStan: the R interface to Stan. URL <http://mc-stan.org/>.

546 Stinson, K. A. 2005. Effects of snowmelt timing and neighbor density on the altitudinal distribution of
547 *Potentilla diversifolia* in Western Colorado, U.S.A. Arctic, Antarctic, and Alpine Research **37**:379–
548 386.

549 Thackeray, S. J., P. A. Henrys, D. Hemming, J. R. Bell, M. S. Botham, S. Burthe, P. Helaouet,
550 D. G. Johns, I. D. Jones, D. I. Leech, E. B. MacKay, D. Massimino, S. Atkinson, P. J. Bacon,
551 T. M. Brereton, L. Carvalho, T. H. Clutton-Brock, C. Duck, M. Edwards, J. M. Elliott, S. J. Hall,
552 R. Harrington, J. W. Pearce-Higgins, T. T. Høye, L. E. Kruuk, J. M. Pemberton, T. H. Sparks,
553 P. M. Thompson, I. White, I. J. Winfield, and S. Wanless. 2016. Phenological sensitivity to climate
554 across taxa and trophic levels. Nature **535**:241–245.

555 Tiusanen, M., T. Kankaanpää, N. S. Schmidt, and T. Roslin. 2020. Heated rivalries: Phenological
556 variation modifies competition for pollinators among arctic plants. Global Change Biology **26**:6313–
557 6325.

558 Vitasse, Y., D. Basler, and D. Way. 2014. Is the use of cuttings a good proxy to explore phenological
559 responses of temperate forests in warming and photoperiod experiments? Tree Physiology **34**:174–
560 183.

561 Vitasse, Y., S. Delzon, E. Dufrene, J.-Y. Pontailier, J.-M. Louvet, A. Kremer, and R. Michalet. 2009.
562 Leaf phenology sensitivity to temperature in European trees : Do within-species populations exhibit
563 similar responses? Agricultural and Forest Meteorology **149**:735–744.

564 Vitasse, Y., G. Hoch, C. F. Randin, A. Lenz, C. Kollas, J. F. Scheepens, and C. Körner. 2013.
565 Elevational adaptation and plasticity in seedling phenology of temperate deciduous tree species.
566 Oecologia **171**:663–678. URL <http://link.springer.com/10.1007/s00442-012-2580-9>.

567 Vitasse, Y., C. Signarbieux, and Y. H. Fu. 2018. Global warming leads to more uniform spring
568 phenology across elevations. Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences **115**:1004–1008.

569 Webb, C. O., D. D. Ackerly, M. A. McPeck, and M. J. Donoghue. 2002. Phylogenies and community
570 ecology. *Annual Review of Ecology Evolution and Systematics* **33**:475–505.

571 Wiens, J. J., D. D. Ackerly, A. P. Allen, B. L. Anacker, L. B. Buckley, H. V. Cornell, E. I. Damschen,
572 T. Jonathan Davies, J.-A. Grytnes, S. P. Harrison, et al. 2010. Niche conservatism as an emerging
573 principle in ecology and conservation biology. *Ecology Letters* **13**:1310–1324.

574 Wolkovich, E. M., and E. E. Cleland. 2014. Phenological niches and the future of invaded ecosystems
575 with climate change. *Annals of Botany* **PLANTS** **6**:1–16.

576 Wright, I. J., P. B. Reich, M. Westoby, D. D. Ackerly, Z. Baruch, F. Bongers, J. Cavender-Bares,
577 T. Chapin, J. H. C. Cornelissen, M. Diemer, J. Flexas, E. Garnier, P. K. Groom, J. Gulias,
578 K. Hikosaka, B. B. Lamont, T. Lee, W. Lee, C. Lusk, J. J. Midgley, M.-L. Navas, Ü. Niinemets,
579 J. Oleksyn, N. Osada, H. Poorter, P. Poot, L. Prior, V. I. Pyankov, C. Roumet, S. C. Thomas, M. G.
580 Tjoelker, E. J. Veneklaas, and R. Villar. 2004. The worldwide leaf economics spectrum. *Nature*
581 **428**:821–827.

582 Yu, H., E. Luedeling, and J. Xu. 2010. Winter and spring warming result in delayed spring phenology
583 on the Tibetan Plateau. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences of the United States of*
584 *America* **107**:22151–22156.

585 Zeng, Z. A., and E. M. Wolkovich. 2024. Weak evidence of provenance effects in spring phenology
586 across Europe and North America. *New Phytologist* **242**:1957–1964.

587 Zohner, C. M., and S. S. Renner. 2014. Common garden comparison of the leaf-out phenology of
588 woody species from different native climates, combined with herbarium records, forecasts long-term
589 change. *Ecology Letters* **17**:1016–1025.

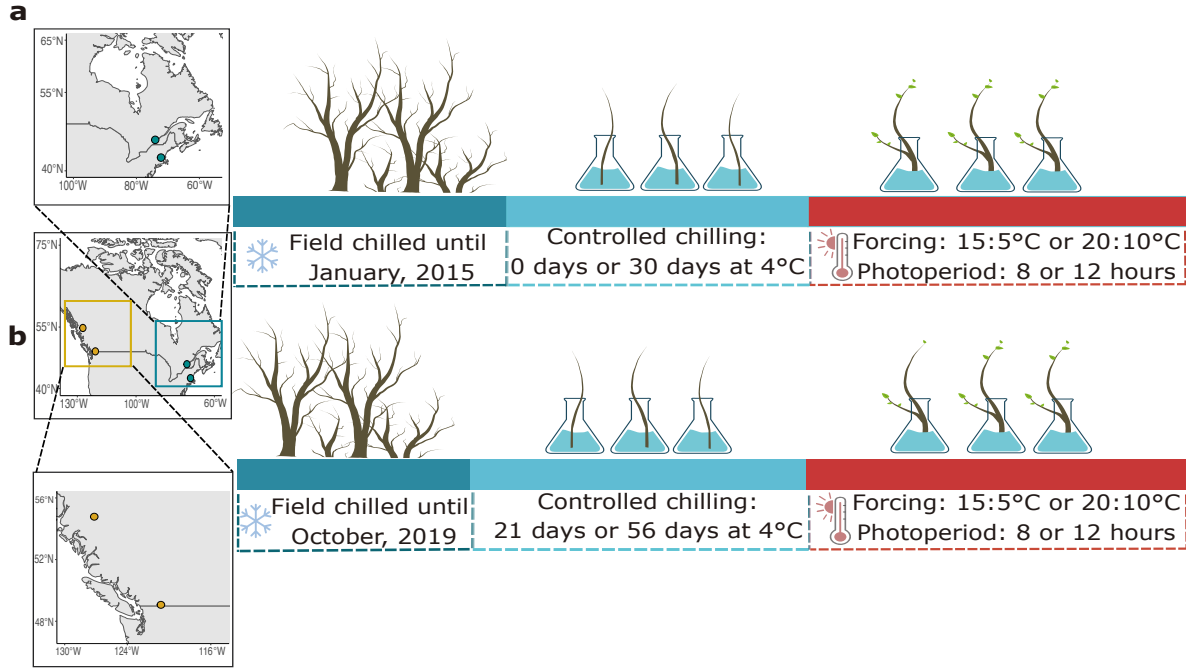
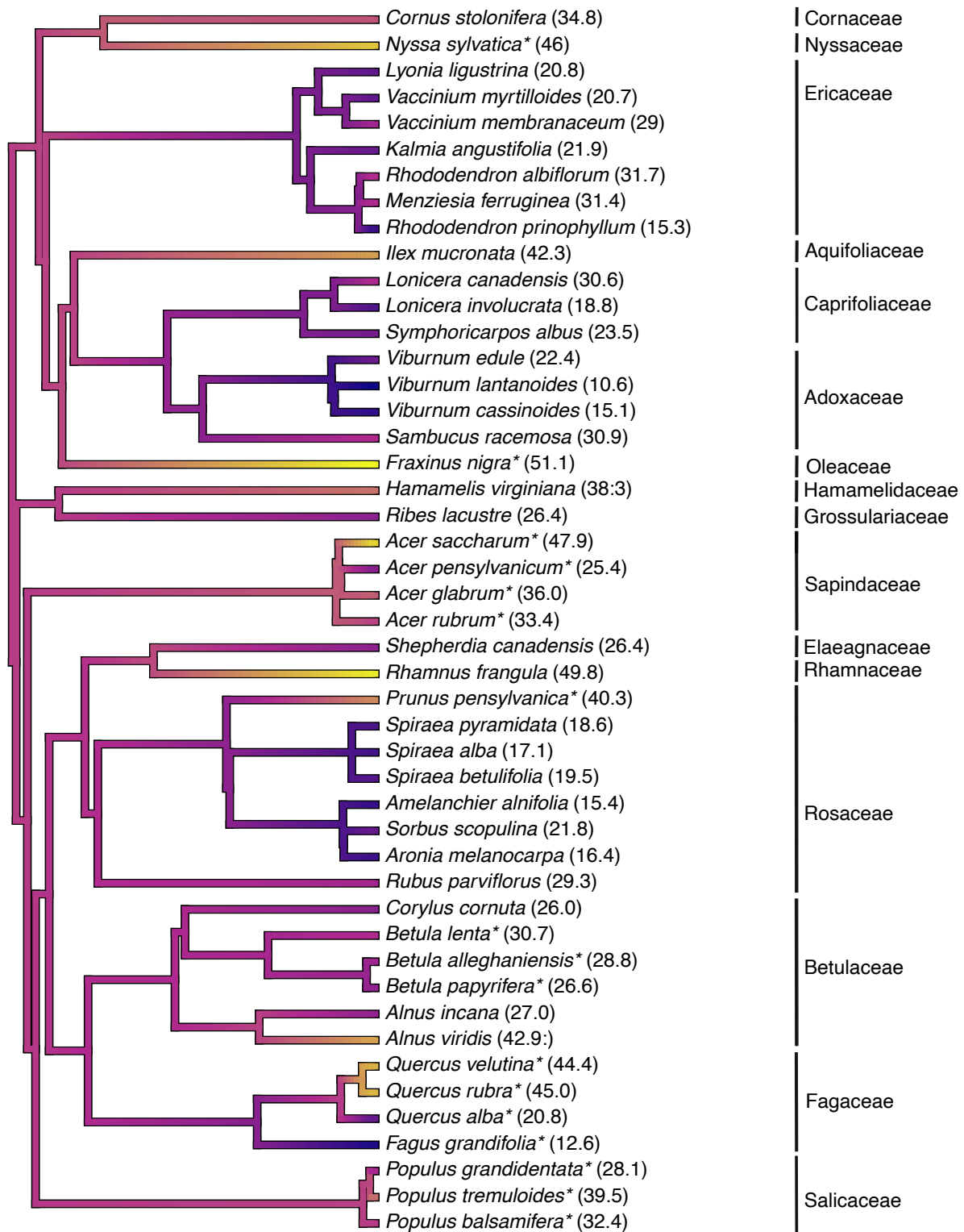


Figure 1: We combined data from two controlled environment studies of temperature and photoperiod cues for budburst in temperate woody species **a**, from two forest communities in eastern North America that span a 4° latitudinal gradient and **b**, two communities in western North America that span a 6° latitudinal gradient. Combined, our dataset includes 28 tree and shrub species from eastern communities and 21 species from western communities, with three species occurring across all four populations. Both studies used a full-factorial design with two levels each of chilling treatments (consisting of a combination of field and different duration of chamber chilling), forcing and photoperiod, for a total of eight unique treatments. Observations of budburst were made during the forcing treatment, using the BBCH scale to classify stages of bud development (see Loughnan and Wolkovich, 2024; Savas et al., 2017, for guides we made for these species).



10 Intercept (days) 50

Figure 2: Tree (denoted with an asterisk) and shrub species differences were accounted for by including phylogenetic effects on the intercept of a model estimating days to budburst after the start of forcing treatments (simplified to 'days₂₂ here'). This approach estimated a phylogenetic scaling parameter for the intercept of 0.4 (where values close to one indicate a phylogenetic effect consistent with Brownian motion and values close to zero the absence such an effect).

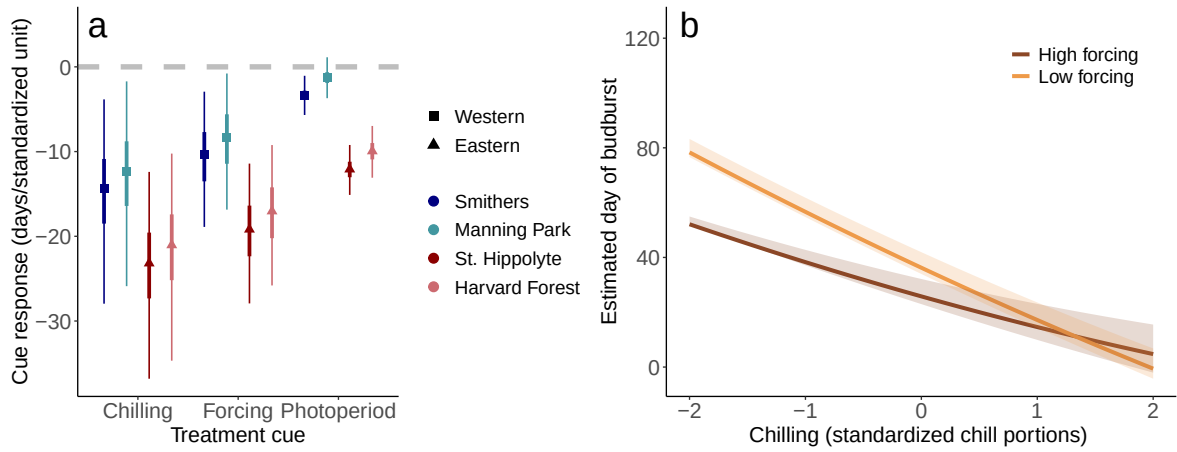


Figure 3: **a**, Posterior distributions of estimated changes in budburst per unit change in chilling, forcing, and photoperiod with individual site-level effects. Symbols denote the eastern (triangle) and western (square) transects and the darker point color our more northern communities. Points represent the mean, thicker lines the 50% uncertainty interval, and the thin lines the 90% uncertainty interval. **b**, Cues interacted to produce a subadditive effect, where delays in budburst under low chilling was offset by high forcing conditions, and vice versa. To make results comparable across cues we standardized chilling, forcing, and photoperiod via z -scores using two standard deviations, see methods for further details.

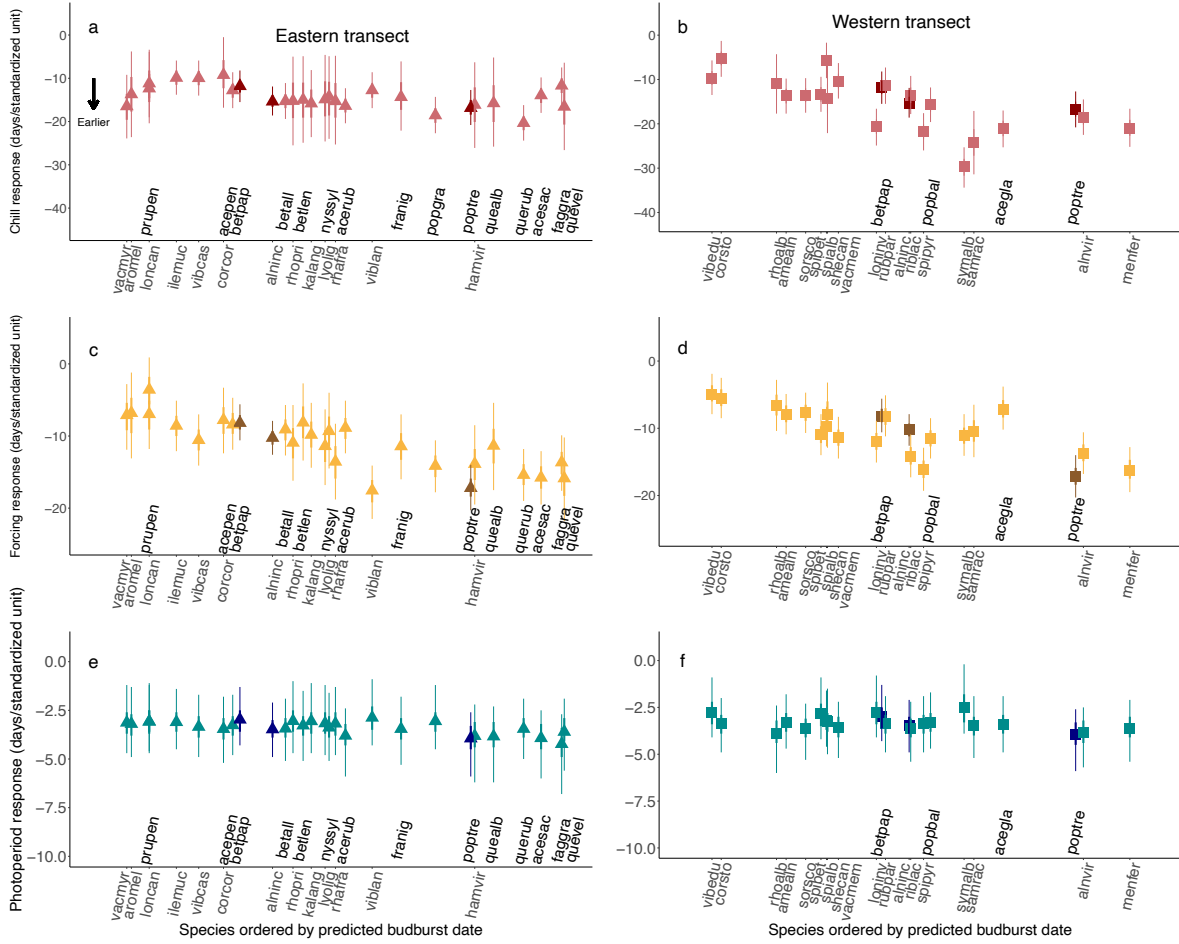


Figure 4: **Estimated change in species budburst day per unit of standardized a,b chilling, c,d forcing, and e,f photoperiod**, ordered by estimated budburst dates for both the **a,c,e**, eastern and **b,d,f** western sites based on our model estimates. Cues are plotted on differing y-axis scales to better depict species differences across cues. For each species, the points represent the mean, thinner error bars represent the 90% uncertainty interval, and thicker bars represent the 50% uncertainty interval. Points for the three species that occur in both the eastern and western transects are depicted using darker colours. **Tree species are labeled above the x-axis and shrub species below the x-axis**. To make the results across cues directly comparable, we standardized predictors (here, chilling, forcing, and photoperiod) via z -scores using two standard deviations, see methods for further details.

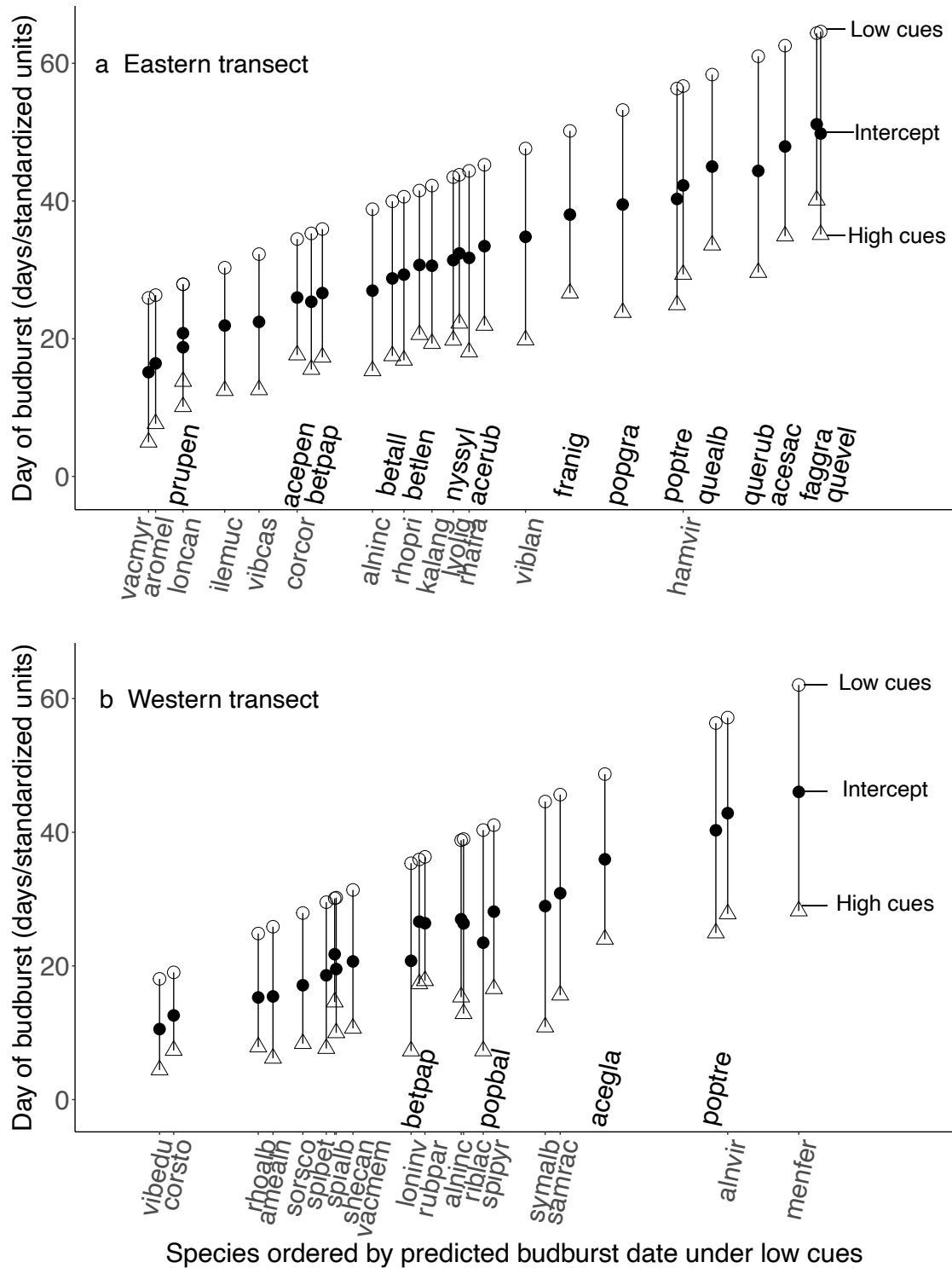


Figure 5: Comparisons of estimated day of budburst for tree (labeled above the x-axis) and shrub species (labeled below the x-axis) based on the full model (intercept plus all cues), shown as white (open) symbols, versus the intercepts only (without effects of chilling, forcing, and photoperiod), shown as black (filled) symbols. Points are ordered according to differences in species estimated budburst dates for both the **a**, eastern **b**, and western sites, with low cue conditions, depicted as circles, and high cue conditions, depicted as triangles.